



Workshop Aims

Selection Bias

Missing Data

Probability
Weights

Imputation

Measurement
Error

Recap

Quantitative Social Research II

Workshop 7: Data Quality

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Workshop Aims

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Recap

- Review the implications of missing data
 - including wider problems of selection bias
 - and measurement error
- Introduce methods to adjust for missing data
 - probability weights
 - imputation



Workshop Aims: Recap

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- Assumptions in the linear regression model ($Y = \alpha + \beta_k X_k + e$):
 - normality: residuals are normally distributed
 - homoskedasticity: the variance of the residuals is constant
 - independence: residuals are independent of each other
 - no multicollinearity
 - **perfectly measured variables**
 - **no missing data** (other than missing at random)
 - no unobserved confounders: we control for all common causes of X_1 and Y
 - no reverse causality: Y does not cause X_1
 - linearity: the effect of X_1 on Y is the same across the range of X_1

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- Non-probability sampling methods
 - not every subject in the population has an equal chance of being captured in the sample
 - tend to produce biased samples
 - i.e. systematically different from the population

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- Probability sampling methods
 - everyone has an equal chance, in principle
 - Question: could probability samples ever be biased?

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 - Question: could probability samples ever be biased?
 - coverage error
 - non-response



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Non-response

- One form of missing data, not the only one
- The most common form of missing data in survey research
- Can take two main forms
 - unit non-response (an entire case is missing)
 - item non-response (information for a given variable is missing)



Non-response

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- One form of missing data, not the only one
- The most common form of missing data in survey research
- Can take two main forms
 - unit non-response (an entire case is missing)
 - item non-response (information for a given variable is missing)
- Missing data mechanisms can be classified in three groups
 - missing completely at random (MCAR) - not data dependent
 - missing at random (MAR) - dependent on seen data
 - missing not at random (MNAR) - dependent on unseen data
- Different implications depending on the ignorability of the missing data mechanism



Unit and Item Non-Response

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- Question: can you identify which cases are affected by unit-missingness and which by item-missingness?

ID	Offence type	Seriousness	Prev. convictions	Sentence length
1	ABH		7	18
2	ABH	3	1	5
3	Affray	2	9	12
4				
5	Affray		15	6
6	GBH	1	0	24



Missing Data Mechanisms

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- Missing completely at random
 - the missing data mechanism is unrelated to our data
 - e.g. some of the data was lost by accident
 - implications: loss of statistical power because of using a smaller sample



Missing Data Mechanisms

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- Missing data at random
 - systematic but predictable by our data
 - e.g. male judges might forget to submit their survey forms more commonly than female judges
 - if left unadjusted will bias our estimates, if adjusted becomes ‘ignorable’



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 - e.g. male judges might forget to submit their survey forms more commonly than female judges
 - if left unadjusted will bias our estimates, if adjusted becomes ‘ignorable’
- Missing data not at random
 - systematic and unpredictable by our data
 - e.g. harsher judges might try to avoid submitting their forms
 - cannot be adjusted easily, will bias our estimates



Probability Weights

- Using *weights* we can reflect the over/under-representation of certain cases to make our sample more representative

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Probability Weights

- Using *weights* we can reflect the over/under-representation of certain cases to make our sample more representative
- One method to create weights is post-stratification
 - if we know the distribution for one or a set of variables in both the target population and our sample
 - we can calculate weights as a ratio of ratios

Gender	Population Proportion	Sample Proportion	Population/ Sample	Weight
Female	.5	.6	.5 / .6	.8333
Male	.5	.4	.5 / .4	1.25
Total	1	1		



Probability Weights

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- poststratification weights can range from 0 to ∞ , although in practice we often cap them from 0.3 to 3
- a weight of 1 means that the influence of that case in our analyses remains unchanged
- a weight of 2 means that the case counts as two normal cases (its influence is doubled)
- a weight of 0.5 means that the case influence is halved



Limitations of Weights

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- They are not statistically efficient (increase standard errors)
 - cases with $W < 1$ are not contributing as much
 - those with $W > 1$ are contributing more than the typical case without increasing the heterogeneity of the sample
 - trade-off between accuracy (validity) and precision (reliability)
- Can adjust for multiple variables
 - by combining their categories
e.g. male-white, male-nonwhite, female-white, female-nonwhite
 - however, soon we run out of cases within specific categories
- Not so flexible to deal with item non-response
 - imputation methods are normally used instead



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Making the most of the Data

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- Cases affected by unit-missing are dropped (case 4)



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- Cases affected by unit-missing are dropped (case 4)
- But also we have to drop cases affected by item-missingness (cases 1 and 5) if we are using those variables, *listwise deletion*

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- Using imputation methods we will be able to use cases affected by item non-response

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Single Imputation

- The simplest methods are based on ‘single imputation’
 - aim to replace each missing data point with a plausible value



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Single Imputation

- The simplest methods are based on ‘single imputation’
 - aim to replace each missing data point with a plausible value
- Mean imputation
 - each missing case replaced by the mean of the observed cases in the same item/variable
 - allows us to make use of all cases
 - artificially reduces the standard deviation of the variable imputed and the standard errors of any model where it is used



Single Imputation

- The simplest methods are based on ‘single imputation’
 - aim to replace each missing data point with a plausible value
- Mean imputation
 - each missing case replaced by the mean of the observed cases in the same item/variable
 - allows us to make use of all cases
 - artificially reduces the standard deviation of the variable imputed and the standard errors of any model where it is used
- Hot-deck imputation & regression imputation
 - each missing case replaced with a value from a similar observation in the dataset
 - uses other variables and cases for which there is complete information to make predictions about the missing values
 - hot-deck imputation if the prediction is made using matching, regression imputation if using regression
 - allows using all cases and the effect on the standard deviation will be milder
 - standard errors still biased from taking the imputed values as data points rather than as estimates for which we are uncertain



Multiple Imputation

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- Multiple imputation

- each missing value is replaced with multiple plausible values to generate multiple complete data sets
- imputations can be done using regression imputation, hot-deck imputation or similar
- the analysis is conducted in each of those datasets, results from each analysis are saved and pooled into an average of estimates
- having multiple values eliminates the problem of treating imputed cases as real data, i.e. accounts for the uncertainty of the imputation process
- generally 3 to 5 imputations are sufficient
- downside, it is computationally intensive



Multiple Imputation

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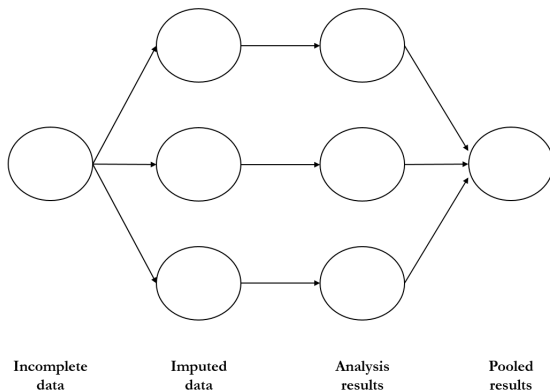
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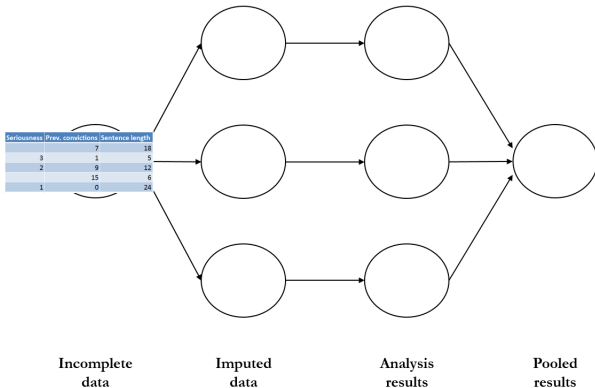
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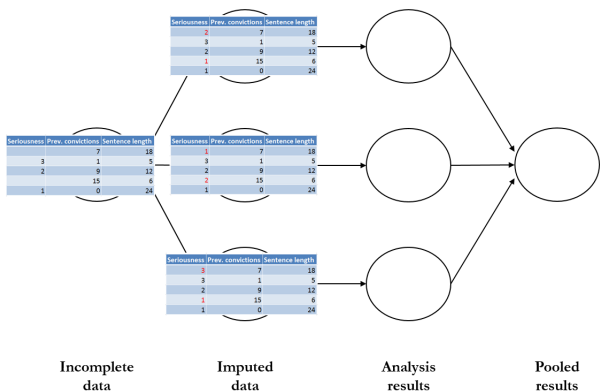
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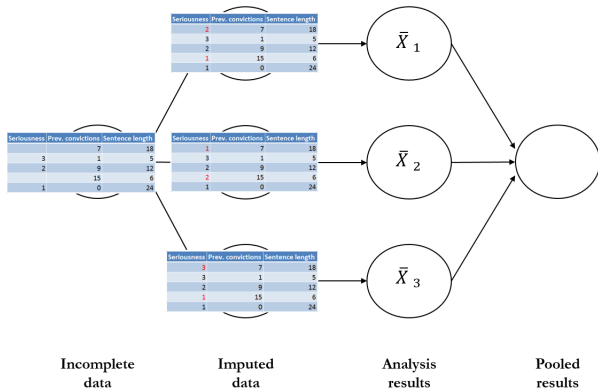
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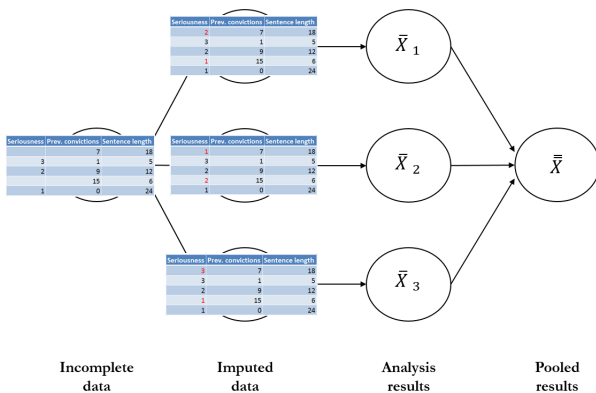
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Measurement Error

- An even more common problem than missing data but hardly ever acknowledged
- Occurs when the *true values* of a variable cannot be observed

$$\begin{array}{ccccc} \text{observed} & & \text{true value} & & \text{noise} \\ \underbrace{X^*} & = & \underbrace{X} & + & \underbrace{\epsilon} \end{array}$$

- can take the form of systematic errors $E(\epsilon) \neq 0$
- and random errors $E(\epsilon) = 0$



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- can take the form of systematic errors $E(\epsilon) \neq 0$
- and random errors $E(\epsilon) = 0$
- Ubiquitous in all types of quantitative research but specially prevalent in the Social Sciences
 - survey data affected by memory failures, social desirability (e.g. underreported unemployment, see [Pina-Sánchez et al. 2014](#)), etc.
 - poor operationalisation of concepts (e.g. using earnings to measure poverty; political decentralisation as spending capacity by regional and local governments, see [Pina-Sánchez 2014](#))
 - measures being played (e.g. arrest goals can inflate crime counts in police data, student satisfaction will increase if I bring chocolates before the module evaluation)
 - inconsistent raters (e.g. ‘blackness’ is defined differently by different people, see [King & Johnson 2016](#))



Implications of Measurement Error

- Measurement error adjustments are tricky
 - either require a ‘gold standard’ (a subset of our sample for which X is observed)
 - or to rely on additional assumptions

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Implications of Measurement Error

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- Measurement error adjustments are tricky
 - either require a ‘gold standard’ (a subset of our sample for which X is observed)
 - or to rely on additional assumptions
- But often we can still anticipate its potential effects
 - If $E(\epsilon) \neq 0$ we should expect bias in the direction of the measurement error
 - e.g. crack down policies on knife crime should be considered when assessing trends in knife crime using police data
 - if the measurement error is random and affecting the outcome variable, $E(Y^*) = Y$, only measures of uncertainty will be affected, $Y^* = \beta_0 + \beta_1 X + e + \epsilon$
 - however, even random error in an explanatory variable, will bias (attenuate) regression coefficients

the slope in simple linear regression, $\hat{\beta}_1 = \frac{Cov(Y, X)}{Var(X)}$

if X is affected by random error, $\hat{\beta}_1^* = \frac{Cov(Y, X)}{Var(X) + Var(\epsilon)}$



Effect of Random Measurement Error

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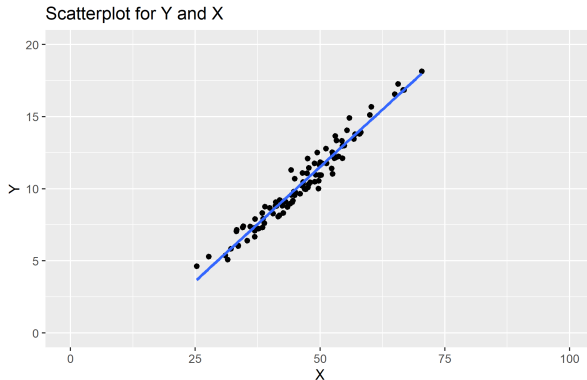
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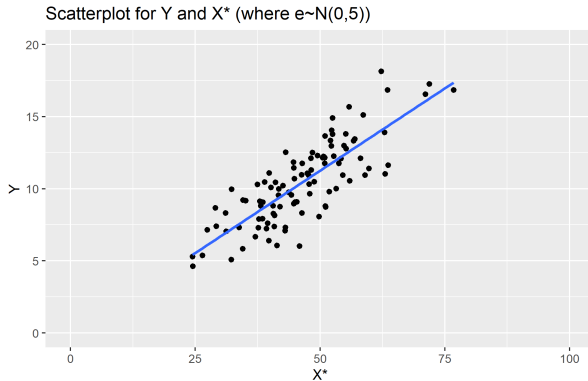
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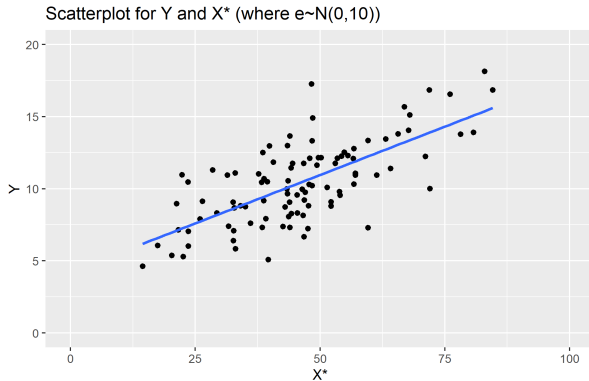
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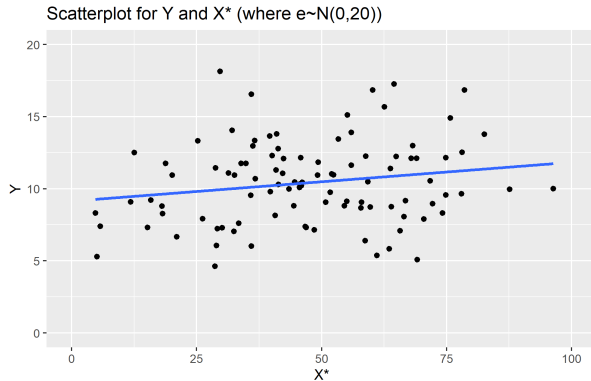
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- We have identified common consequences of missing data and measurement error
 - if the missing data is ignorable we should only expect a loss of statistical power
 - if the missing data is not ignorable we should expect bias
 - for measurement error even random error will bias our estimates (attenuate the slope)

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- We have learnt some common methods to adjust these problems
 - probability weights, help to improve overall representativity, easy to calculate and apply
 - imputation, allow us to use cases affected by item-misingness

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- Recommended readings:
 - on probability weights Yansaneh (2003) ‘Construction and Use of Sample Weights’
 - on multiple imputation
Van Buuren & Groothuis-Oudshoorn (2013) ‘mice: Multivariate Imputation by Chained Equations in R’